From Prompt to Response

An End-to-End Journey Inside LLM and RAG Systems

Table of contents

1 From Prompt to Response **1**

I The Art of the True Name **3**

2 the intro **5**

II The Runes Beneath Language **7**

3 APIs and Model Serving **9**
3.1 The gap between training and deployment . . . 9
3.2 The anatomy of an LLM API . . . 10
3.3 From checkpoint to serving: the loading pipeline . . . 11
3.4 The serving architecture . . . 12
3.5 Batching: the key to serving efficiently . . . 13
3.6 KV cache management . . . 14
3.7 Latency and throughput tradeoffs . . . 15
3.8 Key takeaways . . . 15
3.9 Further reading . . . 17

4 Tokenization **19**
4.1 Two tokenization chapters, two different problems . . . 19
4.2 The encoding pipeline . . . 19
4.3 Token continuation and context window management . . . 21
4.4 The decoding pipeline: from numbers back to text . . . 22
4.5 Logprobs and their uses at inference time . . . 23
4.6 Common failure modes . . . 24
4.7 Key takeaways . . . 24
4.8 Further reading . . . 25

5 Embeddings and Meaning Representation **27**
5.1 The problem with integers . . . 27
5.2 The embedding table . . . 28
5.3 How embeddings are learned . . . 28
5.4 The geometry of embedding space . . . 29
5.5 Contextual vs. static embeddings . . . 30
5.6 Embedding models vs. generation models . . . 30
5.7 Similarity metrics . . . 32
5.8 Embedding dimensions and matryoshka representations . . . 33
5.9 Embeddings in the generative inference pipeline . . . 33
5.10 Practical embedding operations . . . 34

5.11 Key takeaways . . . 35
5.12 Further reading . . . 37

III The Labyrinth of Attention 39

6 Transformer Architecture 41
6.1 Why the transformer won . . . 41
6.2 The intuition before the math . . . 42
6.3 The high-level forward pass . . . 42
6.4 Token embeddings and positional encoding . . . 43
6.5 Self-attention: the core mechanism . . . 45
6.6 Multi-head attention . . . 47
6.7 The feed-forward network . . . 48
6.8 Residual connections and layer normalization . . . 48
6.9 Stacking transformer blocks . . . 50
6.10 Architecture variants . . . 50
6.11 The output layer . . . 53
6.12 What the model actually learns . . . 54
6.13 Key takeaways . . . 54
6.14 Further reading . . . 54

IV The Forbidden Archive 57

V The Forging of Intelligence 59

VI The Trial of the Answer 61

VII The Keepers of the Waking Engine 63

Chapter 1

From Prompt to Response

An End-to-End Journey Inside LLM and RAG Systems

Part I

The Art of the True Name

Chapter 2

the intro

Part II

The Runes Beneath Language

Chapter 3

APIs and Model Serving

The canonical question for this chapter: *A trained model is a file on a disk. How does it become something millions of people can query simultaneously, with low latency, high reliability, and predictable cost?*

Figure 3.1: The journey through the Model Mind.

The prompt has been written and structured. Now it needs to travel somewhere. This chapter covers everything between the user pressing Enter and the model receiving the request: the wire format, the serving infrastructure, and the engineering decisions that make large-scale LLM deployment economical.

3.1 The gap between training and deployment

Training produces a checkpoint: a collection of weight tensors saved to disk. At this point, the model can do nothing on its own. It has no interface. It cannot receive requests. It does not know what a user is.

Turning that checkpoint into a production service requires solving a completely different set of engineering problems from those that were involved in training. During training, we try to optimize for producing as many tokens as possible per second. On the other hand, during serving, the optimization focuses on latency, concurrency, reliability, and cost, which means we want to respond to requests quickly, serve many users simultaneously, remain available under failure, and do all of this economically.

These requirements require a different approach. The same GPU cluster that runs training efficiently is not automatically an efficient serving infrastructure. Serving is its own engineering discipline, with its own abstractions, its own failure modes, and its own optimization techniques.

This chapter covers the full stack from trained checkpoint to the API endpoint a user or application calls.

3.2 The anatomy of an LLM API

The standard interface for production LLM services is an HTTP API, almost universally following the conventions established by OpenAI's API.

3.2.1 The chat completions endpoint

The primary endpoint for most production use:

`POST /v1/chat/completions`

Request body:

```
{
  "model": "gpt-4o",
  "messages": [
    {"role": "system", "content": "You are a helpful assistant."},
    {"role": "user", "content": "What is the capital of France?"}
  ],
  "max_tokens": 100,
  "temperature": 0.7,
  "stream": false
}
```

Response:

```
{
  "id": "chatcmpl-abc123",
  "object": "chat.completion",
  "created": 1699000000,
  "model": "gpt-4o",
  "choices": [
    {
      "index": 0,
      "message": {
        "role": "assistant",
        "content": "The capital of France is Paris."
      },
      "finish_reason": "stop"
    }
  ],
  "usage": {
    "prompt_tokens": 26,
    "completion_tokens": 9,
    "total_tokens": 35
  }
}
```

Several design decisions in this interface iluminates the realities of LLM serving:

Messages array instead of a single string. Conversations have a clear structure consisting of a system prompt, user turns, and assistant turns. The API explicitly defines the structure, instead of relying on concatenated strings and expecting the model to interpret the formatting correctly.

Token counts in the response. Because LLM cost and latency are proportional to token count, the API reports exactly how many tokens were consumed allowing costs to be monitored and controlled programmatically.

`finish_reason`. Why did the model stop generating? `stop` means it produced an end-of-sequence token. `length`

means it reached the `max_tokens`. `content_filter` means the response was filtered. These signals help to determine whether the response is complete

`stream` parameter. Whether to stream tokens as they are generated or return the complete response when done. Streaming is architecturally significant and covered in detail in chapter "REFF".

3.2.2 The completions endpoint (legacy)

An older interface that takes the raw string prompt rather than the structured messages array:

```
{
  "model": "gpt-3.5-turbo-instruct",
  "prompt": "The capital of France is",
  "max_tokens": 10
}
```

This endpoint represents an earlier era of LLM deployment, when models were not chat tuned and the interface was closer to a text continuation service. It is still useful for non-chat use cases but has been superseded by chat completions for most applications.

3.2.3 Key parameters

`temperature` controls the randomness of sampling. At temperature 0, the model always selects the most likely next token (greedy decoding). At temperature 1, it samples from a full distribution. Above 1, the distribution flattens, producing more random and unstable outputs. Temperature interacts with the decoding strategy covered in chapter "REFF".

`top_p` (nucleus sampling) this is an alternative to temperature for controlling randomness. The model samples from the smallest set of tokens in which the cumulative probability exceeds `top_p`. Setting `top_p = 0.9` restricts sampling to tokens that together account for 90% of the probability mass that means the long tail of unlikely tokens is ignored.

`max_tokens` sets the maximum number of tokens to generate. It functions as a cost and latency cap. If the model reaches this limit before producing a stop token, `finish_reason` is `length` and the response may be end mid-sentence.

Stop sequences are one or more strings that cause halt in generation immediately if the model produces them. They are useful for structured generation where you know the output should end at a specific delimiter.

`frequency_penalty` and `presence_penalty` discourage repetition. `frequency_penalty` applies a penalty proportional to how many time a token has already appeared. `presence_penalty` applies a flat penalty to any token that has appeared at all. Both help the model to prevent from getting stuck in repetitive loops.

`n` specifies how many independent completions to generate for a single prompt. Useful for best-of-n sampling where you generate multiple responses and select the best one.

`logprobs` returns the log probabilities of the selected tokens and also the top-k most likely tokens at each position. It is used for calibration, analysis, and classification tasks where you care more about the model's confidence, not just its output.

3.3 From checkpoint to serving: the loading pipeline

Before a model can serve requests, it must be loaded. For a model with hundreds of billions of parameters, this is a nontrivial task.

3.3.1 Checkpoint format and sharding

Training checkpoints are often sharded due to the fact that the full model does not fit in the memory of a single storage node or loading process. A 70B parameter model in BF16 requires approximately 140 GB of storage and Loading it

into a GPU memory requires careful orchestration.

Common checkpoint formats:

- **PyTorch `.pt` / `.bin`**: the standard PyTorch format which can be slow to load due to pickle deserialization
- **SafeTensors**: a faster and safer alternative which can be loaded significantly faster via memory-mapped files
- **GGUF**: a format used by llama.cpp, optimized for inference on consumer hardware and it is able to quantize weights natively

3.3.2 Quantization for serving

Training typically utilizes BF16 weights (2 bytes per parameter). For serving, quantization reduces this further:

INT8 quantization stores weights as 8-bit integers (1 byte per parameter). This achieves a 2× memory reduction which causes a small quality loss that is mostly negligible for generation tasks.

INT4 quantization uses 4-bit integers (0.5 bytes per parameter) for a 4× memory reduction. Causes more quality loss and needs careful calibration. Enables running 70B models on consumer GPUs that could not otherwise fit them.

GPTQ is a post-training quantization technique that calibrates 4-bit quantization using a small dataset, minimizing quality loss from reduced precision.

AWQ (Activation-aware Weight Quantization) quantizes weights while accounting for the distribution of activations, producing better results than naive quantization at the same bit width.

The tradeoff is consistent: the quantization reduces memory requirements while increase throughput, at the cost of some output quality. For production serving where cost matters, INT8 is nearly universal. INT4 is used when memory is severely constrained or when we want to serve on consumer hardware.

3.3.3 Tensor parallelism for large models

A 405B parameter model in BF16 requires approximately 810 GB of GPU memory that is far beyond a single GPU's capacity. In these scenarios, loading requires distributing the model across multiple GPUs using tensor parallelism (splitting individual weight matrices across GPUs) or pipeline parallelism (assigning different layers to different GPUs).

The same parallelism strategies used in training apply to serving, but with different constraints: training prioritizes throughput (large batches, high utilization), while serving prioritizes latency (fast first-token generation, smaller batches).

3.4 The serving architecture

3.4.1 The inference server

The core component: a process that holds the model weights in GPU memory and handles requests. The major implementations:

vLLM is the dominant open-source inference server. It introduces PagedAttention (covered in detail in chapter "REFF") for efficient KV cache management, and supports tensor parallelism, continuous batching, and most major model architectures.

TensorRT-LLM (NVIDIA) is NVIDIA's inference optimization library. It applies kernel fusion, INT8/FP8 quantization, and hardware-specific optimizations. Typically the fastest option on NVIDIA hardware but requires compilation for specific model shapes which is a trade between flexibility and performance.

llama.cpp is a pure C++ implementation of LLaMA-family models, optimized for CPU and consumer GPU inference. Not competitive with vLLM for high-throughput serving, but it is unmatched for accessibility and local deployment.

3.4.2 The API gateway

In front of the inference server sits the API layer:

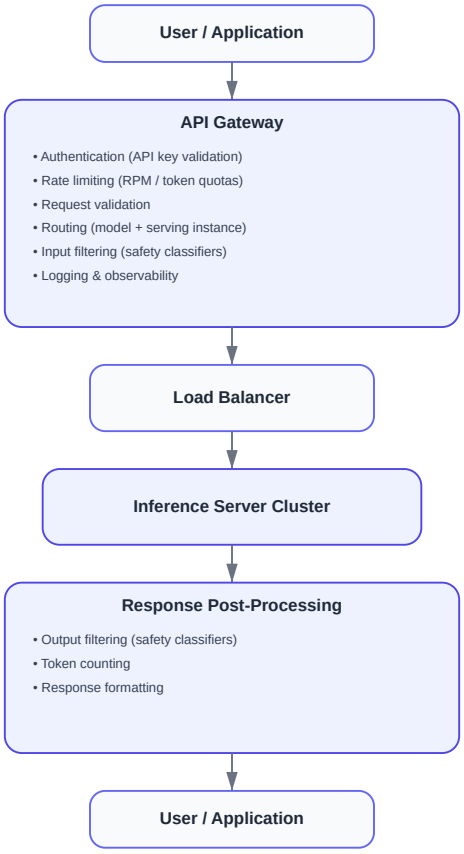

Figure 3.2: The API gateway.

The API gateway is not a performance bottleneck what it does is to process the metadata. It is critical for security (authentication prevents unauthorized access), cost control (rate limiting prevents abuse), reliability (routing distributes traffic and handles failures), and observability (logging every request enables debugging and billing).

3.5 Batching: the key to serving efficiently

A single inference server instance can handle many requests simultaneously. How it batches those requests together affects throughput and GPU utilization.

3.5.1 Naive static batching

The simplest approach is to wait until you have `batch_size` requests, process them together, return all results.

The problem is that LLM generation is variable length. On request might generate 10 tokens while the other might generate 500. In a static batch, all requests must wait for the longest one to finish. GPU utilization drops as shorter requests complete and their slots sit idle, waiting.

3.5.2 Continuous batching

The key innovation for efficient LLM serving, introduced by [1] and popularized by vLLM.

Instead of batching at the request level, continuous batching operates at the iteration level meaning it happens at every token generation step. After each token is generated:

1. Check which sequences in the current batch have finished
2. Remove finished sequences from the batch
3. Add new incoming requests to fill the freed slots
4. Run the next generation step on the updated batch

```
Step 1: [A , B , C ]         ← three requests, first token
Step 2: [A , B , C ]
Step 3: [A , B , C_stop]     ← C finishes after 3 tokens
Step 3: [A , B , D ]         ← D immediately fills C's slot
Step 4: [A , B , D ]
Step 5: [A_stop, B , D ]     ← A finishes
Step 5: [E , B , D ]         ← E fills A's slot
```

The GPU is always processing a full batch. None of the slots sit idle waiting for the longest sequence to finish. On real workloads, this approach can improve throughput by 2 to 3 times compared to a naive static batching. Continuous batching requires careful KV cache management which explains why PagedAttention exists.

3.5.3 Prefill and decode phases

LLM generation has two distinct phases with different compute profiles:

Prefill: processing the input prompt. All prompt tokens are processed in parallel. This phase is compute bound and the bottleneck is GPU arithmetic throughput.

Decode: generating output tokens one at a time. Each step processes one single new token, attending to all previous tokens via the KV cache. This phase is memory-bandwidth-bound and the bottleneck is reading the model weights and KV cache from GPU memory.

Because prefill and decode have different bottlenecks, mixing them in the same batch is not optimal. **Chunked prefill** and **disaggregated serving** are emerging techniques that separate prefill and decode across different hardware or batch slots to maximize utilization of each phase independently.

3.6 KV cache management

The KV cache stores the key and value tensors computed for each previous token, avoiding recomputation on every generation step. It is the central memory management challenge in serving, and will be explained in chapter “REFF”.

A brief introduction here, because it directly constrains serving architecture:

For a model with `L` layers, `h` KV heads, `d_k` key/value dimension, and a sequence of length `n`:

```
KV cache size = 2 × L × h × d_k × n × bytes_per_element
```

For LLaMA 2 70B (L=80, h=8 GQA heads, d_k=128) in BF16:

```
Per token: 2 × 80 × 8 × 128 × 2 = 327,680 bytes   320 KB
4,096 tokens: 320 KB × 4,096   1.3 GB
32,768 tokens: 320 KB × 32,768   10.5 GB
```

At high concurrency with long contexts, KV cache competes directly with model weights for GPU memory.

3.6.1 PagedAttention

The key innovation in vLLM, inspired by virtual memory paging in operating systems.

Traditional KV cache reserves a contiguous memory block for each sequence, sized to accommodate the maximum possible length. This causes internal fragmentation (reserved memory that goes unused when sequences are shorter than expected) and external fragmentation (free memory that cannot be used because it is not contiguous).

PagedAttention allocates KV cache in fixed-size pages of tokens, with a page table mapping logical sequence positions to physical memory locations. Memory is allocated and freed one page at a time as sequences grow and complete:

```
Sequence A: [Page 3, Page 7, Page 12]     ← pages need not be contiguous
Sequence B: [Page 1, Page 9]
Sequence C: [Page 2, Page 4, Page 5, Page 11]
Free pages: [Page 6, Page 8, Page 10, ...]
```

This will eliminates fragmentation and enables an almost perfect memory utilization. It also enables prefix sharing which means if two requests share a common system prompt, the KV cache for that prefix can be shared across both sequences without duplication.

3.7 Latency and throughput tradeoffs

Serving performance is characterized by two metrics that pull against each other:

Time to first token (TTFT) is how long the user waits before seeing any output. This is determined primarily by prefill time and since longer prompts take longer to prefill it is the metric users perceive most directly.

Time between tokens (TBT) is how fast tokens arrive after the first one. This is determined by decode speed. For a 70B model on a single A100, 20 to 60 tokens per second is typically expected.

Throughput is total tokens processed per second across all concurrent requests. Maximized by large batch sizes, which directly conflict with low TTFT.

Production systems manage this tradeoff through maximum batch size limits (cap batch size to maintain acceptable latency), priority queuing (prioritize interactive requests over batch workloads), and SLA-based scheduling (different latency targets for different user tiers).

3.8 Key takeaways

- A trained model checkpoint becomes a production service through a pipeline involving quantization, multi-GPU loading, an inference server, and an API gateway, since training and serving are distinct engineering disciplines
- The chat completions API format, including the messages array, key parameters, and token usage reporting, reflects the practical realities of LLM serving rather than arbitrary design choices
- Continuous batching operates at the token level rather than the request level, keeping GPUs fully utilized despite variable-length generation and serving as the main efficiency improvement for high-throughput systems
- KV cache memory is the central serving constraint because it grows with sequence length and batch size and competes directly with model weights for GPU memory, while PagedAttention manages it using virtual memory paging
- Prefill is compute bound and decode is memory bandwidth bound, so they have fundamentally different performance profiles and can be optimized independently
- TTFT and throughput trade off against each other, and the appropriate balance depends on whether the system serves interactive applications or batch workloads

---

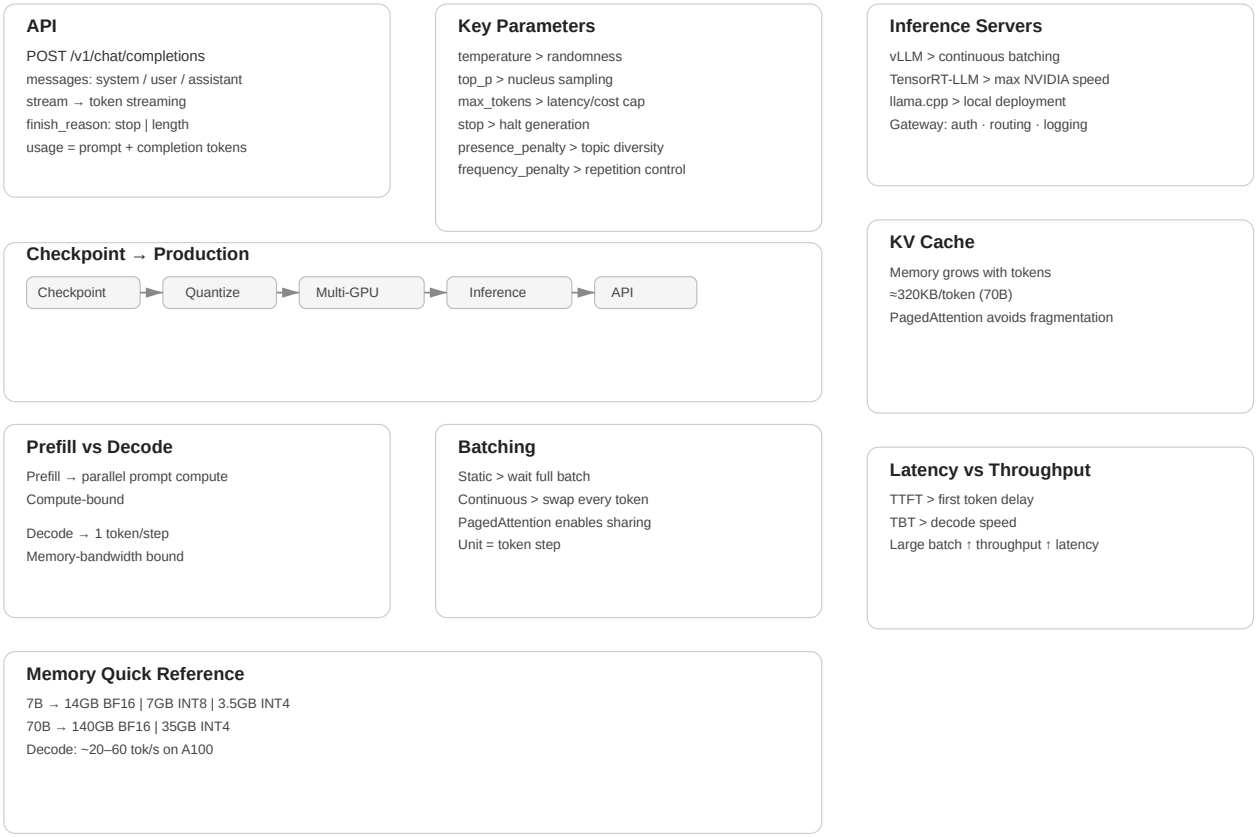

Figure 3.3: Cheat sheet.

3.9 Further reading

- Yu et al. (2022). *Orca: A Distributed Serving System for Transformer-Based Generative Models.*: Introduces continuous batching.
- Kwon et al. (2023). *Efficient Memory Management for Large Language Model Serving with PagedAttention.*: The vLLM paper; foundational for modern serving.

← *Previous: 02 — Prompt engineering and structure*
Next: 04 — Tokenization →

Chapter 4

Tokenization

The canonical question for this chapter: *A user sends a message while a model receive and returns numbers. How does text become numbers on the way in, and how do numbers become text on the way out?*

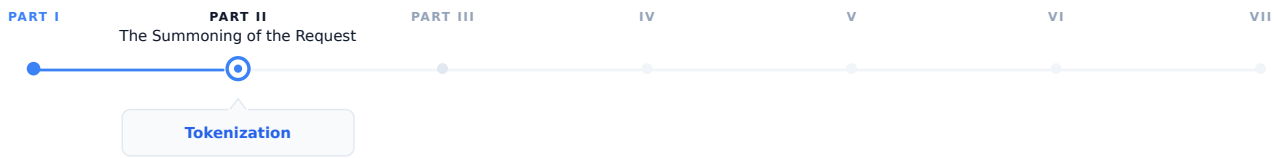

Figure 4.1: The journey through the Model Mind.

The request has arrived at the inference server. Before the model sees a single character, the text must be converted to numbers. This chapter covers that conversion in both directions and describes everything that can go wrong in between.

4.1 Two tokenization chapters, two different problems

If you read the training section first, you have already seen tokenization as in a batch preprocessing environment which means a corpus is tokenized once, offline, before training begins. The vocabulary is fixed. The inputs are known and errors are caught early.

Tokenization at inference is a different story. It runs on arbitrary user input, in real time, and on every request. It supposed to handle every string a user might type which could be multilingual text, source code, emoji, adversarial inputs, or a combination of all four. The encoded output feeds directly into a running model. The decoded output appears on a user's screen, sometimes token by token while they watch.

The concerns here are mostly operational, not theoretical. Understanding them is the difference between shipping reliable LLM applications or debugging corruption failures at 2am.

4.2 The encoding pipeline

When a request arrives, the first operation is encoding: converting the messages array into a flat sequence of token IDs ready for the model. This happens in two steps that are easy to confuse but are conceptually different.

4.2.1 Step 1: chat template application

The messages array has structure which includes roles, turns, and system prompts. The model has no concept of a dictionary. Before tokenization, the structured input must be flattened into a single string using a chat template.

Each model family has its own template. For LLaMA 3:

```
<|begin_of_text|>
<|start_header_id|>system<|end_header_id|>

You are a helpful assistant.<|eot_id|>
<|start_header_id|>user<|end_header_id|>

What is the capital of France?<|eot_id|>
<|start_header_id|>assistant<|end_header_id|>
```

For Mistral:

```
<s>[INST] What is the capital of France? [/INST]
```

For ChatML (OpenAI and many others):

```
<|im_start|>system
You are a helpful assistant.<|im_end|>
<|im_start|>user
What is the capital of France?<|im_end|>
<|im_start|>assistant
```

The special tokens (`<|begin_of_text|>`, `<|eot_id|>`, `<|im_start|>`) are part of the model's vocabulary and were added during fine-tuning. The model learns to associate these markers with role transitions. Feeding the wrong template to the model causes it to sees an unexpected token sequence which in turn may cause the model to ignore the system prompt, and fail to complete the turn correctly, or produces outputs that look almost right but are systematically wrong in ways that can be hard to diagnose. This is one of the most common sources of bugs: no error is thrown yet the model just quietly misbehaves.

4.2.2 Step 2: token encoding

Once the flat string is constructed, the tokenizer converts it to integer IDs. This is a deterministic step in which the same string always produces the same IDs given the same tokenizer.

```python
messages = [
    {"role": "system", "content": "You are a helpful assistant."},
    {"role": "user",   "content": "What is the capital of France?"}
]

# Step 1: flatten with chat template
flat_string = apply_chat_template(messages, tokenizer)
# → "<|im_start|>system\nYou are a helpful assistant.<|im_end|>\n..."

# Step 2: convert to integers
token_ids = tokenizer.encode(flat_string)
# → [151644, 8948, 198, 2610, 525, 264, 10950, 17847, 13, ...]

# Step 3: pass to model
logits = model.forward(token_ids)
```

The tokenizer runs on CPU and for typical prompt lengths it is fast enough to be negligible relative to model inference time. On the other hand, for very long prompts (100k+ tokens) it can become measurable and there are some inference frameworks that cache tokenized system prompts to avoid repeating this work on every request.

4.2.3 Special tokens that require explicit handling

Several special tokens need attention beyond the template:

Beginning of sequence (BOS). Many models expect a BOS token at position 0 and the tokenizer typically adds it automatically while some serving configurations require manual insertion. A missing BOS token causes silent quality degradation which means the model's input distribution does not match training, and early tokens may be erratic.

End of turn markers. The template includes tokens marking the end of each turn and it must appear in the correct positions or the model misidentifies role boundaries.

Tool call tokens. Models fine-tuned for function calling have additional special tokens called tool call syntax. These must be in the tokenizer vocabulary and correctly placed in the template.

The generation prompt. The template typically ends with the opening of the assistant turn (e.g., `<|im_start|>assistant\n`) without closing it. This will signal the model that it should continue from here and omitting it causes the model to generate an incorrect turn structure.

4.3 Token continuation and context window management

The context window is the maximum sequence length the model can process in a single forward pass which is typically a range between 8k to 128k tokens for current models. Managing what fits in this window is a critical operational concern.

4.3.1 Count with the tokenizer, not your intuition

Token counts are not characters divided by four, or words divided by 0.75. They are the actual output of the tokenizer on the specific input string. Heuristics are inaccurate enough to cause real failures:

- Code tokenizes very differently from prose which means identifiers, operators, and whitespace have their own patterns
- Non-English text is often less efficient than English for most tokenizers
- Special tokens (role markers, tool tokens) add counts that character estimates miss entirely

Every production system that needs to stay within a context window must count tokens using the actual tokenizer, not an approximation:

```python
import tiktoken

enc = tiktoken.encoding_for_model("gpt-4o")

def count_tokens(messages: list[dict]) -> int:
    num_tokens = 0
    for message in messages:
        num_tokens += 4  # role, content, separators overhead
        for value in message.values():
            num_tokens += len(enc.encode(value))
    num_tokens += 2  # reply priming tokens
    return num_tokens
```

The exact overhead is varied by model and template. Always validate against the API's reported token counts on a representative sample.

4.3.2 The context window budget

In a typical production request, the context window is shared between several competing claims:

```
Total context window (e.g., 128k tokens)
   System prompt              (fixed, e.g., 500-2,000 tokens)
   Conversation history       (grows with each turn)
   Retrieved context (RAG)    (variable, e.g., 2,000-10,000 tokens)
   Current user message       (variable)
   Reserved for completion    (max_tokens parameter)
```

The sum must not exceed the window and if it does, the request will fail or the serving layer silently truncates something which is usually the earliest conversation history, that could be the exact context the user needs the most. Applications must actively manage this budget rather than hoping it fits.

Rolling window keeps only the most recent N tokens of history. While it is simple, it loses early context which can be fine for short tasks and problematic for long conversations.

Summarization uses the model to compress earlier turns into a compact representation when history approaches the limit. With this approach it preserves semantic content at the cost of an additional model call.

Hierarchical retrieval stores full history externally and only retrieve the most relevant portions for the current turn. This approach requires a retrieval component but it can scale to arbitrarily long conversations.

4.3.3 Prompt caching and its token implications

Some APIs (Anthropic's Claude, Google's Gemini) offer explicit prompt caching: mark a portion of the prompt as cacheable, and subsequent requests that share the same prefix reuse the KV cache from the first request, charged at a reduced rate.

For cost management, structure prompts with the stable content (system prompt, long documents) first and variable content (user messages, dynamic context) in the end. Token counting for cached prompts will distinguishs between newly processed tokens and cache-read tokens, as the API reports these separately and they have completely different cost implications.

4.4 The decoding pipeline: from numbers back to text

After the model selects the next token ID (the selection process is covered in chapter "REFF"), the serving layer converts that ID back to text. This is less straightforward than it appears.

4.4.1 Detokenization

The inverse operation: token IDs to string.

```python
token_ids = [15223, 374, 279, 6864, 315, 9822, 13]
text = tokenizer.decode(token_ids)
# → "Paris is the capital of France."
```

While it seems that detokenization simply involves looking up each token's string and concatenating them together, several complications exist:

Byte-level BPE and UTF-8 reconstruction. In byte-level tokenizers, tokens represent raw bytes rather than complete characters. Because UTF-8 characters are able to span multiple bytes, a single character (many Chinese characters or emojis) may be splited across several tokens. Decoding each token independently can therefore produce invalid text or replacement symbols. The correct procedure is to concatenate all token bytes first and then perform a single UTF-8 decode, ensuring the original characters are correctly reconstructed.

Special tokens in output. If the model produces a special token (end of text, role marker, tool call token), detokenization must strip it, convert it to a meaningful representation, or treat it as a halt signal. Which action is correct totally depends on context and must be handled explicitly.

4.4.2 Streaming detokenization

In streaming mode, tokens arrive one at a time and must be decoded incrementally which creates a specific problem: a byte sequence that spans multiple tokens cannot be decoded until all of its bytes have arrived.

Consider a Chinese character requiring 3 UTF-8 bytes, split across three tokens of 1 byte each:

- After token 1: 1 byte received and it is not a valid UTF-8 codepoint yet and cannot emit
- After token 2: 2 bytes received and it is still incomplete
- After token 3: 3 bytes received finally it is completed, decode and emit the character

A streaming decoder must buffer incomplete byte sequences and emit characters only once a complete Unicode codepoint is available. A naive implementations that pass `errors="ignore"` or `errors="replace"` will silently corrupt non-ASCII output while the HuggingFace `TextStreamer` and similar utilities handle this correctly.

4.5 Logprobs and their uses at inference time

Most APIs can optionally return the log probabilities of generated tokens which is more useful than it might initially appear.

4.5.1 What logprobs tell you

For each generated token, logprobs report the log probability the model assigned to the chosen token, and optionally the top-k alternatives with their probabilities:

```
{
  "token": "Paris",
  "logprob": -0.0023,
  "top_logprobs": [
    {"token": "Paris", "logprob": -0.0023},
    {"token": "Lyon",  "logprob": -6.12},
    {"token": "Nice",  "logprob": -7.88}
  ]
}
```

A logprob of -0.0023 means the model assigned probability `exp(-0.0023)  0.998` to this token which means the model is essentially certain. A logprob of -6.12 means `exp(-6.12)  0.002` and represent a distant second choice.

4.5.2 Classification without generation

For binary or multiple-choice tasks, logprobs let you skip generating a full response and instead read the probabilities of specific tokens directly which is faster and cheaper:

```
response = client.completions.create(
    model="gpt-4o",
    prompt=f"{text}\n\nIs this sentiment positive? Answer with yes or no.",
    max_tokens=1,
    logprobs=True,
    top_logprobs=5
)

top = response.choices[0].logprobs.top_logprobs[0]
yes_logprob = next(t.logprob for t in top if t.token.strip().lower() == "yes")
no_logprob  = next(t.logprob for t in top if t.token.strip().lower() == "no")
```

```
is_positive = yes_logprob > no_logprob
```

4.5.3 Calibration and uncertainty estimation

The perplexity of a generated response which is represented by the average negative log probability per token is a rough proxy for the model's confidence:

```
import numpy as np

logprobs = [token.logprob for token in response.choices[0].logprobs.content]
perplexity = np.exp(-np.mean(logprobs))
# High perplexity → model was uncertain about this response
```

This is not a hallucination detector which means the model can be confidently wrong, and often is. But it is a useful routing signal: responses with high perplexity can be flagged for human review or follow-up verification without running a separate evaluation model.

4.6 Common failure modes

Tokenization at inference produces specific, reproducible failure patterns. Knowing them saves significant debugging time.

Wrong tokenizer for the model. Using the GPT-2 tokenizer with a LLaMA model produces completely wrong token ID sequences. The model interprets unrelated IDs as completely different tokens which in turn leads to a garbage output.

Wrong chat template. Applying the wrong template produces subtly wrong token sequences. The model may ignore the system prompt, continue the user turn instead of starting an assistant turn, or generate role labels as content. This also fails silently and is especially confusing because outputs look almost right but are systematically off.

BOS token doubling. Some serving frameworks add BOS automatically while some expect the caller to add it. If BOS appears twice, the model sees an unexpected sequence at position 0 and may behave erratically.

Context overflow without truncation. If the total token count exceeds the context window and the serving layer does not truncate explicitly, some APIs return an error while some silently truncate from the beginning.

Encoding/decoding asymmetry. `decode(encode(s))` may not equal `s` for strings containing Unicode normalization differences, special tokens with non-standard decoding, or whitespace that the tokenizer normalizes.

4.7 Key takeaways

- Chat template application: flattening the messages array into a string with model-specific role delimiters it happens before tokenization and is model-specific; the wrong template produces silent quality degradation
- Token counting must use the actual tokenizer, not character or word heuristics; accurate counting is essential for context window management and cost control
- The context window budget must be actively managed across system prompt, conversation history, retrieved context, and completion reservation
- Streaming detokenization must buffer incomplete UTF-8 byte sequences and emit characters only once a complete codepoint is available; naive implementations corrupt non-ASCII output
- Stop sequence detection operates on decoded strings, not token IDs, and must handle sequences that span token boundaries and appear at buffer edges

- Token healing solves the boundary problem for prompts ending at arbitrary character positions, improving completion quality for structured generation
- Logprobs enable efficient classification, uncertainty estimation, and confidence- based routing without generating full responses

---

4.8 Further reading

- HuggingFace Tokenizers documentation: Fast tokenizers and chat templates.
- OpenAI Cookbook: How to count tokens with tiktoken.
- HuggingFace (2023): Chat Templating Guide.

← Previous: 03 — APIs and model serving
Next: 05 — Context windows →

Tokenization at Inference, Cheat Sheet

Encoding Pipeline

1. Apply chat template → flatten structured messages

`<system> ... <user> ... <assistant>`

2. Tokenizer converts text → token IDs

`"Paris is capital" → [1512, 374, 279]`

Critical Special Tokens

- BOS token must exist at position 0
- End-of-turn markers define roles
- Tool tokens required for function calling
- Assistant prompt signals generation start

Context Window Budget

System prompt
Conversation history
RAG context
User message + completion tokens
Always count tokens using tokenizer, never estimate.

History Management Strategies

Rolling window → keep recent tokens only
Summarization → compress earlier turns
Hierarchical retrieval → fetch relevant past context

Decoding Pipeline

Model outputs token IDs → detokenizer reconstructs UTF-8 text

`[15223, 374, 279] → "Paris is the capital"`

Byte-level tokenizers require buffering before emitting characters.

Streaming Decoding

- Tokens arrive one at a time
- Partial UTF-8 bytes must be buffered
- Emit text only when character completes

Logprobs Uses

- Confidence estimation
- Classification without generation
- Perplexity ≈ uncertainty signal

Common Failure Modes

- Wrong tokenizer for model
- Wrong chat template → silent quality loss
- Double BOS token
- Context overflow / silent truncation
- encode(decode(x)) != x due to normalization

Figure 4.2: Cheat sheet.

Chapter 5

Embeddings and Meaning Representation

The canonical question for this chapter: *How does a model convert a token ID into something that has meaning, and how does that representation evolve as it passes through the network?*

Figure 5.1: The journey through the Model Mind.

Tokenization converts the prompt text into a sequence of integer IDs. These integers has no meaning a neural network on their own. This chapter covers the step that makes them meaningful and it introduces the geometric structure of meaning that the rest of the model operates on.

5.1 The problem with integers

A token ID is an arbitrary index. The token ID for `"Paris"` might be 15342 while the token ID for `"London"` is 9562. These numbers do not carry any information about the relationship between the two cities. They are just indices in a lookup table, nothing more.

An embedding is the thing that you get after that lookup: a dense vector of floating point numbers with hundreds or thousands of dimensions. The embedding for `"Paris"` might be something like `[0.23, -0.87, 0.12, ...]` with 4096 values and the embedding for `"London"` is a completely different vector nevertheless in a well-trained model, it will be close to Paris's vector in this high-dimensional space, because the two tokens appear in similar contexts throughout the training corpus.

This is the core insight: geometric proximity in embedding space convey the semantic relatedness. Tokens that appear in similar contexts have similar embeddings. The model does not learn this rule explicitly it caused by gradient descent on the next-token prediction objective. Training discovers that representing semantically related tokens as nearby vectors produces better predictions, and adjusts accordingly over trillions of examples.

Embeddings are the bridge between the discrete world of tokens and the continuous world of neural network computation. Everything the transformer does which includes every attention operation, and every feed-forward pass operates on these continuous vectors and the model never touches the original token IDs again after the embedding lookup.

5.2 The embedding table

The embedding table is a matrix of shape `[vocab_size, d_model]`. Each row is the learned embedding for one token.

```
Embedding table (simplified, d_model = 4):

Token ID  Token     Embedding vector
0         <pad>     [ 0.00,  0.00,  0.00,  0.00]
1         <eos>     [ 0.12, -0.34,  0.87,  0.23]
2         "the"     [-0.45,  0.67, -0.12,  0.89]
3         "Paris"   [ 0.91,  0.23, -0.67,  0.45]
4         "London"  [ 0.88,  0.19, -0.71,  0.43]
5         "cat"     [-0.23,  0.89,  0.34, -0.67]
```

The lookup is a simple indexed memory access: `embedding = table[token_id]`. Implemented as a matrix multiplication with a one-hot vector in theory; in practice it is O(1) and takes microseconds.

For GPT-3 with `vocab_size = 50,257` and `d_model = 12,288`:

```
Embedding table size = 50,257 × 12,288 × 2 bytes (BF16)
                       1.24 billion parameters
                       2.47 GB
```

This is a significant fraction of total model size and it is also the most memory efficient part of the model relative to its influence: every token the model processes uses exactly one row of this table.

5.2.1 Weight tying

The same embedding table is used twice: once at the input (token IDs → embeddings) and once at the output (final hidden state → logits over vocabulary). This is called weight tying and is standard in most transformer language models.

At the output, the hidden state `h` of shape `[d_model]` is multiplied by the transposed embedding table `E^T` of shape `[d_model, vocab_size]` to produce logits of shape `[vocab_size]`:

```
logits = h @ E^T
```

Weight tying reduces the parameter count by `vocab_size × d_model` and, more importantly it enforces a geometric consistency: the direction that represents a token at the input is the same direction the model uses to predict that token at the output. This constraint improves training efficiency and generalization and it is one of those architectural decisions that looks obvious in hindsight yet it was not obvious at all beforehand.

5.3 How embeddings are learned

At the start of training, the embedding table is initialized from a small random distribution and it does not carry any semantic information they are just noise.

Through training, gradient descent updates each embedding row whenever its token appears in the training data. The update moves the embedding in the direction that reduces prediction loss. Over millions of update steps on millions of tokens, the embeddings converge to representations that capture the statistical structure of language.

The mechanism works by giving tokens that appear in similar contexts, similar gradient updates. If `"Paris"` and `"London"` both appear after `"capital of"` and before `"is beautiful"`, their embeddings are repeatedly pushed in similar directions. Over enough training, they converge to nearby vectors.

This is the distributional hypothesis, operationalized by gradient descent: *you shall know a word by the company it keeps.*

5.3.1 The rare token problem

Embedding parameters receive less frequent updates than other model parameters. A token that appears once in a billion token batch updates once while a common token might get updates in every batch. This creates an implicit learning rate inequality: frequent tokens have well trained embeddings but rare tokens may be poorly trained even in large models.

This is one reason why multilingual models struggle with low-resource languages, and why domain specific jargon may get handled poorly even in a large general model due to this simple fact that the embeddings for rare tokens have not seen enough gradient signal to settle into a useful position.

5.4 The geometry of embedding space

Trained embeddings organize into a rich geometric structure. Understanding this structure is practically useful for interpreting the model behavior and for building a retrieval system.

5.4.1 Semantic neighborhoods

Semantically related tokens cluster together. In embedding space, countries cluster near each other, verbs in the same semantic field cluster together, synonyms are close, and antonyms are often directionally opposite. This is not an artifact of any particular architecture it emerges from the distributional statistics of the language and it is similar across all model families.

5.4.2 Linear structure

The most famous property of word embeddings is the fact that analogical relationships correspond to linear operations.

```
embedding("king") - embedding("man") + embedding("woman")   embedding("queen")
embedding("Paris") - embedding("France") + embedding("Germany")   embedding("Berlin")
embedding("walked") - embedding("walk") + embedding("run")   embedding("ran")
```

Directions in embedding space encode semantic dimensions. The vector from `"man"` to `"woman"` is a gender direction. The vector from `"France"` to `"Paris"` is a capital of direction. Addition and subtraction of embedding vectors correspond to semantic composition and transformation.

This property approximately exist in static embeddings (Word2Vec, GloVe) and it continues to presist in the token embeddings of large transformers, though it might not be as clean as static embedding. The transformer layers above the embedding table further transform these representations in ways that create richer structure yet it makes it harder to extract clean linear relationships.

5.4.3 Isotropy and representation collapse

Embeddings occupy only a narrow cone of the available space, with most directions unused which makes it one of the failure modes in embedding training which is called anisotropy. When embeddings are anisotropic, cosine similarity between random embeddings is high even for semantically unrelated tokens and causes the embedding based retrieval unreliable.

Modern large models are less prone to this compared older smaller models, yet it remains a concern in fine-tuning models where the embedding distribution can shift significantly during training.

5.5 Contextual vs. static embeddings

The embedding table produces a single fixed vector for each token, regardless of context. The token `"bank"` gets the same embedding whether the surrounding context is about finance or about rivers.

This is the limitation of static embeddings an the transformer layers above the embedding table are able to solve it. After the initial embedding lookup, each transformer block modifies the token representations through attention and feed-forward operations and when it gets to the final layer, the representation of `"bank"` in a financial context is completley different from `"bank"` in a geological context. This happens not because the embedding table has changed, but because the transformer layers incorporated contextual information from surrounding tokens.

These contextual representations are called "contextual embeddings" to distinguish them from static lookup embeddings at the first layer. They are what BERT family models were designed to expose, and what RAG retrieval systems use when they need semantically rich representations.

5.5.1 The residual stream

This is a useful model for understanding how representations evolve through the network:

```
x_0 = token_embedding + positional_encoding

x_1 = x_0 + Attention_1(LayerNorm(x_0))
x_1 = x_1 + FFN_1(LayerNorm(x_1))

x_2 = x_1 + Attention_2(LayerNorm(x_1))
x_2 = x_2 + FFN_2(LayerNorm(x_2))

...

x_L = final hidden state → logits
```

Each layer adds a refinement to the running representation while the early layers tend to encode syntactic features, middle layers encode semantic relationships and the final layers encode task specific features that is used for prediction.

The residual structure means the original token embedding is always present in the stream and it gets added to every layer and never replaced. This is why the embedding table remains relevant even in very deep models: its contribution persists all the way through computation, like a base note that harmonics are built on top of.

5.5.2 Which layer to extract from

For tasks that use hidden states as embeddings, such as classification, retrieval, or similarity, a practical question that could arise is which layer should be used?

The last layer contains the most task specific information but it may over optimize for next token prediction at the expense of general semantic content. The second to last layer is a common heuristic that often outperforms the last layer for semantic similarity tasks. An average across all layers captures information at all levels of abstraction can be considered robust yet expensive. Middle layers often encode the richest structural information for syntactic tasks.

For dedicated embedding models (text-embedding-3-large, E5, BGE), this question is moot, these models are specifically trained to produce useful representations at the last layer using contrastive objectives rather than next token prediction. For retrieval tasks these models should be used instead of the generative models.

5.6 Embedding models vs. generation models

Generative models are trained to predict the next token although their internal hidden states can be extracted and used for retrieval, this is not what they are optimized for. On the other hand dedicated embedding models form a separate

class. They are trained with different objectives and are designed specifically to produce useful vector representations of text.

5.6.1 Contrastive training

Contrastive training is the dominant training approach for embedding models. The model is trained in a way that semantically similar texts have nearby embeddings and semantically different texts have distant embeddings.

The InfoNCE loss, used by models like E5, GTE, and many others:

$$\mathcal{L} = -\log\left(\frac{\exp\left(\mathrm{sim}(q, k^+)/\tau\right)}{\sum_i \exp\left(\mathrm{sim}(q, k_i)/\tau\right)}\right)$$

Where q is the query embedding, k^+ is the positive (semantically similar) embedding, k_i are all keys including negatives, sim is cosine similarity, and τ is a temperature parameter.

The model learns to pull positive pairs together and push negative pairs apart. Training data consists of (query, positive document) pairs which is derived from naturally occurring sources: question-answer pairs, search query logs, natural language inference datasets.

5.6.2 Hard negatives

The quality of negative examples is critical. Random negatives, which mostly means arbitrary documents from the corpus, are too easy. The model learns to distinguish clearly unrelated texts without developing fine-grained discrimination.

Hard negatives are documents that are topically related but semantically different from the positive:

```
Query:         "What is the capital of France?"
Positive:      "Paris is the capital and most populous city of France."
Easy negative: "The mitochondria is the powerhouse of the cell."
Hard negative: "France is a country in Western Europe with Paris as a major city."
               (related topic, but does not directly answer the question)
```

Mining hard negatives is itself a retrieval problem. Modern embedding model training pipelines use a previous model version or a BM25 index to find hard negatives and train a better model on those negatives, and iterate.

5.6.3 Asymmetric encoding

Many retrieval tasks are asymmetric which means that the query and the document are different in length, style, and information density. A question is short and underspecified yet the document is long and detailed.

Some embedding models handle this by encoding queries and documents with different instruction prefixes:

```
Query encoding:    embed("Represent this query for retrieval: " + query)
Document encoding: embed("Represent this document for retrieval: " + document)
```

The prefix signals to the model what role the text plays, allowing it to produce better representations for each. Models like E5 and Instructor were designed around this approach.

5.6.4 Embedding model families

Model	Dimensions	Context	Notes
text-embedding-3-small	1536	8,191 tokens	OpenAI; fast and cheap
text-embedding-3-large	3072	8,191 tokens	OpenAI; best quality in family

Model	Dimensions	Context	Notes
text-embedding-ada-002	1536	8,191 tokens	OpenAI legacy; widely deployed
E5-large-v2	1024	512 tokens	Open-source; strong performance
BGE-large-en-v1.5	1024	512 tokens	BAAI; strong on MTEB
Nomic-embed-text-v1	768	8,192 tokens	Open-source; long context
voyage-large-2	1536	16,000 tokens	Voyage AI; strong retrieval

The MTEB (Massive Text Embedding Benchmark) leaderboard is the standard reference for comparing embedding models across retrieval, classification, clustering, and semantic similarity tasks.

5.7 Similarity metrics

Embeddings are only useful if you can compare them so the choice of metric matters.

5.7.1 Cosine similarity

The standard metric for text embedding comparison:

```
cosine_sim(a, b) = (a · b) / (||a|| × ||b||)
```

Cosine similarity measures the angle between two vectors, ignoring magnitude. Values range from -1 (opposite directions) to 1 (identical direction). The appeal for this metric is the invariance to magnitude. A document and its summary should be similar even if the document produces a larger magnitude vector due to greater information density.

For normalized embeddings (unit vectors), cosine similarity equals the dot product: `cosine_sim(a, b) = a · b` when `||a|| = ||b|| = 1`. Most embedding APIs return normalized vectors, making the dot product the efficient choice at scale.

5.7.2 Dot product

Without normalization, the dot product combines angle and magnitude. For some retrieval tasks, magnitude carries useful signal which means a more specific or central document might have higher magnitude and it makes the raw dot product a better metric than cosine similarity.

Modern embedding models and vector databases support both; check the model documentation for which metric the model was trained to optimize.

5.7.3 Euclidean distance (L2)

This is a less common metric for text embeddings andor normalized vectors, L2 distance and cosine similarity are monotonically related:

$$\|a - b\|_2^2 = 2 - 2\cos(a, b)$$

L2 is mostly specific for applications (k-means clustering, certain index structures) where the metric properties are desirable.

5.8 Embedding dimensions and matryoshka representations

The dimensionality of an embedding determines its representational capacity and its cost. While a 3072-dimension embedding can represent finer grained semantic distinctions, it requires 12 KB per vector in float32 and more compute for similarity search. On the other hand a 768-dimension embedding has less capacity but 4× lower storage and faster search. For retrieval over millions to billions of vectors, the difference is significant.

5.8.1 Matryoshka Representation Learning (MRL)

This is a training technique that allows a single model to produce useful embeddings at multiple dimensions from the same forward pass. Instead of training separate models for different embedding sizes, MRL organizes the embedding space in a way that **useful representations exist at progressively larger prefixes of the same vector**.

MRL trains the model so that the first `d` dimensions of the full embedding are as useful as a `d`-dimensional embedding trained from scratch and simultaneously, for multiple values of `d`:

5.8.1.1 Core Idea

Let the model output a full embedding:

$$\text{embed} \in \mathbb{R}^{1536}$$

MRL trains the network such that **every prefix of the embedding** is independently meaningful:

```
- `embed[:64]` behaves like a strong 64-dim embedding
- `embed[:128]` behaves like a strong 128-dim embedding
- `embed[:256]` behaves like a strong 256-dim embedding
- ...
- `embed[:1536]` remains the highest-quality representation
```

This is analogous to **Russian matryoshka dolls**, where smaller representations are nested inside larger ones.

5.8.1.2 Training Objective

During training, the same embedding is evaluated at multiple truncation levels:

```
L = L(embed[:64]) + L(embed[:128]) + L(embed[:256]) + L(embed[:512]) + L(embed[:1536])
```

Each term computes the task loss (e.g., contrastive similarity loss) using only the first `d` dimensions.

The result is that you can use the full 1536-dimension embedding for high-accuracy search, or truncate to 256 dimensions for a 6× speedup at a small quality cost, using the same model. Dimensionality becomes a deployment parameter rather than a model choice.

OpenAI's text-embedding-3 series uses MRL, allowing callers to specify output dimensions at request time.

5.9 Embeddings in the generative inference pipeline

Within a generative LLM's inference pipeline, embeddings participate at two specific points.

5.9.1 Input: the embedding lookup

After tokenization, token IDs are converted to embeddings via the table lookup. Positional encodings are added (either as additive vectors or via RoPE modifications to attention), and result enters the first transformer block. This step is computationally trivial and takes microseconds even for long sequences.

5.9.2 Output: projection back to vocabulary

The final hidden states are projected to logit space via the transposed embedding table. This is a matrix multiplication of shape `[seq_len, d_model] @ [d_model, vocab_size]` which is the largest matrix multiply in a single forward pass for models with large vocabularies.

For a model with `d_model = 4096` and `vocab_size = 128,000`:

```
Output projection: [seq_len, 4,096] @ [4,096, 128,000]
                 = seq_len × 524,288,000 multiplications
```

For a sequence of 1,000 tokens, this is over 500 billion operations it is significant enough that some models apply the output projection only to the final token position during generation rather than to all positions.

5.10 Practical embedding operations

5.10.1 Embedding a batch of texts

```python
from openai import OpenAI

client = OpenAI()

texts = [
    "The capital of France is Paris.",
    "Paris is a city in Europe.",
    "The mitochondria is the powerhouse of the cell."
]

response = client.embeddings.create(
    input=texts,
    model="text-embedding-3-large",
    dimensions=1024  # MRL truncation
)

embeddings = [item.embedding for item in response.data]
# embeddings[0] and embeddings[1] will be much closer than embeddings[0] and [2]
```

5.10.2 Computing similarity

```python
import numpy as np

def cosine_similarity(a: list[float], b: list[float]) -> float:
    a, b = np.array(a), np.array(b)
    return float(np.dot(a, b) / (np.linalg.norm(a) * np.linalg.norm(b)))

sim_01 = cosine_similarity(embeddings[0], embeddings[1])
sim_02 = cosine_similarity(embeddings[0], embeddings[2])

print(f"Paris sentences:       {sim_01:.3f}")
print(f"Paris vs mitochondria: {sim_02:.3f}")
```

5.10.3 Semantic search over a corpus

```
import numpy as np

corpus = ["doc 1 text...", "doc 2 text...", ...]
corpus_embeddings = np.array([
    client.embeddings.create(
        input=doc, model="text-embedding-3-large"
    ).data[0].embedding
    for doc in corpus
])  # shape: [n_docs, 1024]

query = "What is the capital of France?"
query_embedding = np.array(
    client.embeddings.create(
        input=query, model="text-embedding-3-large"
    ).data[0].embedding
)  # shape: [1024]

# Cosine similarity (assuming normalized embeddings from the API)
similarities = corpus_embeddings @ query_embedding  # shape: [n_docs]
top_k_indices = np.argsort(similarities)[::-1][:5]

for idx in top_k_indices:
    print(f"Score: {similarities[idx]:.3f} | {corpus[idx][:80]}")
```

For production retrieval over large corpora, replace the numpy dot product with a vector database (Pinecone, Weaviate, Qdrant, pgvector) that handles indexing and approximate nearest neighbor search at scale. The vector database is the subject of chapter "REFF".

5.11 Key takeaways

- An embedding converts a discrete token ID into a continuous vector; geometric proximity in embedding space encodes semantic relatedness, emerging from the distributional statistics of training rather than any explicit rule
- The embedding table is a `[vocab_size, d_model]` matrix shared between input lookup and output projection (weight tying), enforcing geometric consistency between how tokens are represented and how they are predicted
- Static embeddings give every token a fixed vector regardless of context; contextual embeddings (hidden states at later layers) incorporate surrounding context through attention, the residual stream shows how representations accumulate refinements from syntactic to semantic to task-specific
- Dedicated embedding models are trained with contrastive objectives (InfoNCE loss on positive/negative pairs) rather than next-token prediction, producing representations optimized for similarity search
- Hard negatives, topically related but semantically wrong examples, are essential for training models that make fine-grained distinctions; mining them is itself a retrieval problem
- Cosine similarity is the standard metric for comparing embeddings; always use the metric the model was trained to optimize, using the wrong one degrades retrieval results in ways that are hard to diagnose
- Matryoshka Representation Learning allows a single model to produce useful embeddings at multiple dimensions, making dimensionality a deployment parameter
- The output projection (final hidden state to logits) is the most compute- intensive embedding operation in the generative forward pass; the input lookup is negligible by comparison

---

Embeddings & Meaning Representation — Cheat Sheet

1. Tokenization → Integer IDs

Text → tokens → arbitrary indices (no meaning)

`"Paris" → 15342`

2. Embedding Lookup

Embedding table E ∈ R[vocab_size × d_model]

`embedding = E[token_id]`

Discrete tokens → continuous vectors

3. Geometry of Meaning

• Similar words cluster together

• Directions encode semantic relations

`king − man + woman ≈ queen`

Cosine similarity measures semantic closeness

4. Contextual Embeddings (Transformer)

Residual stream progressively refines representation:

x_0 `= token_embedding + position`

x_{l+1} `=` x_l `+ Attention + FFN`

Meaning evolves layer-by-layer.

5. Embedding Models vs Generative Models

Generative LLMs → next-token prediction

Embedding models → contrastive learning (InfoNCE)

Goal: similar texts → nearby vectors

6. Matryoshka Representation Learning (MRL)

Single embedding usable at multiple dimensions:

`L = L(e[:64]) + L(e[:128]) + ... + L(e[:1536])`

Dimensionality becomes a deployment parameter.

Figure 5.2: Cheat sheet.

5.12 Further reading

- Elhage et al. (2021). *A Mathematical Framework for Transformer Circuits.*: The residual stream model and how information flows through transformer layers.
- Wang et al. (2022). *Text Embeddings by Weakly-Supervised Contrastive Pre-training.*: The E5 paper; representative of modern embedding model training with hard negatives.
- Kusupati et al. (2022). *Matryoshka Representation Learning.*: MRL for flexible-dimension embeddings from a single model.
- Muennighoff et al. (2023). *MTEB: Massive Text Embedding Benchmark.*: The standard benchmark for comparing embedding models across tasks and domains.

← *Previous: 05 — Context windows*
Next: 07 — Transformer architecture →

Part III

The Labyrinth of Attention

Chapter 6

Transformer Architecture

The canonical question for this chapter: *Given a sequence of token embeddings, how does the transformer convert them into a prediction about what comes next and why is this architecture the one that won?*

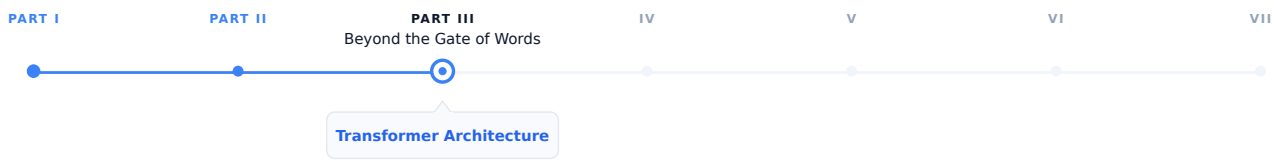

Figure 6.1: The journey through the Model Mind.

The prompt has been tokenized, the tokens have been converted to embedding vectors, and the request has arrived at the inference server. Now the model begins to think. This chapter covers the architecture that does the thinking (what it is, why it is built this way, and what each component actually does.)

6.1 Why the transformer won

Before 2017, sequence modeling was dominated by recurrent neural networks (LSTMs and GRUs). These architectures processed text one token at a time, left to right, maintaining a hidden state that carried information forward through the whole sequence. They worked, but they had two fundamental problems.

The first was the bottleneck problem, all the information about the entire input had to be compressed into a single fixed-size hidden state vector before being used to generate output. For the long sequences, early information was inevitably lost or distorted and the model had to decide what to remember and what to forget at every step.

The second was parallelization. Because each step depended on the previous step's hidden state, RNNs could not be parallelized across the sequence dimension. While the model GPU hardware are heavily tuned for parallelisim training these models were fundamentally bottlenecked by sequential computation.

The transformer, introduced in Vaswani et al. (2017), eliminated both problems with a single architectural decision: replace recurrence with attention. Every token attends directly to every other token in a single step, resulting in neither sequential dependency nor an information bottleneck, and the training can be fully parallelized across the sequence.

This is not a minor optimization but a different computational paradigm that happens to be perfectly matched to the hardware of the last decade.

6.2 The intuition before the math

Before working through the mechanics, it helps to have a mental model of what the transformer is doing at a high level.

Think of each token as a person sitting in a room with everyone else who has ever appeared in the same sequence. At each layer, every person can ask a question of every other person, receive weighted answers based on relevance, and update their understanding accordingly. After many rounds of this, each person's understanding has been shaped by the entire room.

The questions are learned queries, the relevance weighting is attention, the updating occurs in the residual stream, and the many rounds correspond to the layers.

6.3 The high-level forward pass

A transformer language model takes a sequence of token IDs as input and produces a probability distribution over the vocabulary as output in other word a prediction of what token comes next.

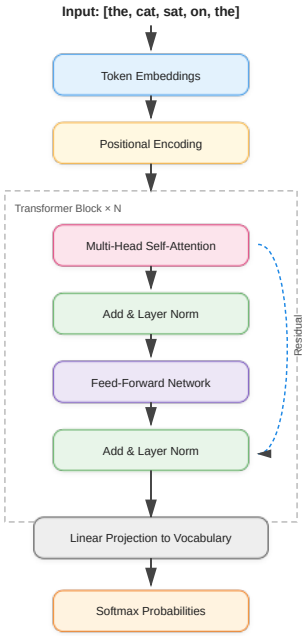

Figure 6.2: Transformer block.

Each component serves a specific function. In the following sections we work through them in order.

6.4 Token embeddings and positional encoding

6.4.1 Token embeddings

The first operation maps integer token IDs to continuous vectors using an embedding table, which is a matrix with shape `[vocab_size, d_model]` and Each row is a learned vector for that token. Looking up token ID 42 retrieves row 42 of the embedding table.

For GPT-3, `d_model = 12,288` and the vocabulary has roughly 50,000 tokens. The embedding table therefore has about 600 million parameters which is a significant fraction of the total model. These embeddings are learned end-to-end during training; the model discovers what representation of each token is most useful for predicting the next one.

The embedding table is shared with the output layer. The same matrix used to look up input embeddings is used (transposed) to project the final hidden state back to vocabulary space. This weight tying reduces parameters and improves performance by enforcing geometric consistency between how tokens are represented and how they are predicted.

6.4.2 Positional encoding

Attention, as we will see, is permutation-invariant which means if you shuffle the tokens in the input, attention produces the same output for each token regardless of order. This is a problem: `"the cat sat"` and `"sat cat the"` would be processed identically. Positional encodings inject order information into the representations by adding a position-dependent signal to each token embedding.

6.4.3 Sinusoidal encoding (the original transformer)

It uses a deterministic functions:

```
PE(pos, 2i)   = sin(pos / 10000^(2i / d_model))
PE(pos, 2i+1) = cos(pos / 10000^(2i / d_model))
```

Different dimensions oscillate at different frequencies that produces a unique fingerprint for each position. These encodings are fixed and generalizes to sequence lengths not seen during training.

6.4.4 Learned positional embeddings**

they replace the formula with a second learned matrix of shape `[max_sequence_length, d_model]`, each position gets its own trained vector, updated by gradient descent.

6.4.5 Rotary Positional Embeddings (RoPE)

They are widely used in modern transformer architectures such as LLaMA, PaLM, and many recent open-weight large language models. Unlike absolute positional encodings, which are added directly to token embeddings before the attention mechanism, RoPE injects positional information directly into the self-attention computation itself.

The core idea behind RoPE is to encode position by applying a rotation to the query and key vectors in each attention head. For each token position, the representation is split into pairs of dimensions, and each pair is rotated by an angle that depends on the token's absolute position. This rotation is structured so that when computing the dot product between a query at position `m` and a key at position `n`, the result depends on the relative offset `(m - n)` rather than their absolute positions.

More formally, RoPE treats each pair of dimensions in a query or key vector as a 2D plane and applies a rotation matrix whose angle increases linearly with position. For a given position `p`, each 2D subspace is rotated by:

$$\theta_p = p \cdot \omega_i$$

where ω_i is a frequency term that depends on the embedding dimension index. This design closely relates to sinusoidal encodings, but differs fundamentally in that the positional information is applied as a transformation of the query and key vectors rather than an additive signal.

In practice, each pair of dimensions is rotated using sine and cosine functions:

$$\begin{pmatrix} x_1' \\ x_2' \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} \cos(\theta_p) & -\sin(\theta_p) \\ \sin(\theta_p) & \cos(\theta_p) \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \end{pmatrix}$$

This rotation preserves vector magnitude while changing orientation, embedding positional structure geometrically into the representation space.

A key consequence of this formulation is that the dot product between a query at position `m` and a key at position `n` naturally depends on the relative distance `(m - n)`. This emerges from trigonometric identities that cause the absolute positional components to cancel out during the inner product. As a result, RoPE encodes relative position information implicitly without explicitly computing pairwise distances.

This property provides several important benefits:

- Firstly, it captures relative position information directly, which is often more meaningful for language modeling than absolute position. Language understanding typically depends on relationships between tokens rather than their absolute locations in a sequence.
- Secondly, RoPE improves extrapolation to longer sequences. Because the rotation is a smooth, continuous function of position, it generalizes beyond the training context window more gracefully than learned absolute embeddings. However, performance can still degrade for very long contexts if not trained appropriately.
- Thirdly, RoPE introduces no additional learned parameters for positional encoding. The positional structure is fully deterministic, making it parameter-efficient and reducing the risk of overfitting positional patterns.

In multi-head attention, each head applies the same rotational mechanism but operates in different learned subspaces. This allows different heads to specialize in different positional behaviors. Some heads naturally focus on local dependencies, while others capture long-range relationships due to accumulated phase differences.

6.4.6 ALiBi (Attention with Linear Biases)

It takes a very different approach to positional information. Instead of explicitly encoding positions into token representations, ALiBi modifies the attention mechanism itself by adding a fixed bias to attention scores based on the distance between tokens.

In ALiBi, the attention score between a query at position `m` and a key at position `n` is penalized linearly according to their distance `|m - n|`. This means that tokens that are farther apart receive a progressively stronger negative bias, encouraging the model to focus more on nearby context while still allowing access to long-range dependencies when needed.

A key advantage of ALiBi is that it requires no positional embeddings at all—neither learned nor fixed sinusoidal ones. Instead, positional information is entirely encoded through the attention bias structure. This simplicity makes ALiBi highly efficient and robust, particularly for long-context extrapolation. It has been used in models such as MPT and has shown strong performance in settings where generalization to longer sequences is important.

For a query at position m and a key at position n, the attention score is adjusted as:

$$\text{score}(m, n) = q_m \cdot k_n - \alpha_h \cdot |m - n|$$

Here: - $q_m \cdot k_n$ is the standard dot-product attention score - $\mid m - n \mid$ is the absolute distance between tokens - α_h is a head-specific slope (each attention head gets a different decay rate)

One of the key design choices in ALiBi is that different attention heads use different slopes. Some heads have a steep penalty (they focus very locally), while others have a shallow penalty (they can attend further away). This creates a

natural diversity of attention ranges without explicitly designing multiple mechanisms. The slopes are not learned, Instead, they are fixed using a deterministic scheme that assigns geometrically spaced values. With this method it avoids additional parameters and ensures predictable extrapolation behavior.

6.5 Self-attention: the core mechanism

Self-attention is an operation that allows every token to gather information from every other token in the sequence. It is the defining innovation of the transformer.

6.5.1 The intuition

Consider: `"The cat slept on the bed because it was dark."`

What does `"it"` refer to? For a human, it's clear that `"it"` refers to the environment, not `"the cat"` or `"the bed"`. A model needs to make this connection to process the sentence correctly. Self-attention allows the token `"it"` to look at every other token, assign an attention weight to each one (higher weight to the context suggesting darkness, lower weight to unrelated tokens like `"bed"`), and blend their representations into its own. After attention, the representation of `"it"` carries information about the surrounding environment being dark.

6.5.2 Queries, keys, and values

Self-attention uses three learned linear projections of each token's embedding: Query (Q), Key (K), and Value (V).

For a sequence of `n` tokens with embedding dimension `d_model`:

$$
\begin{aligned}
Q &= XW_Q \qquad shape : [n, d_k] \\
K &= XW_K \qquad shape : [n, d_k] \\
V &= XW_V \qquad shape : [n, d_v]
\end{aligned}
$$

Where `X` is the matrix of token embeddings and W_Q, W_K, W_V are learned weight matrices.

The attention scores are computed as:

$$\text{Attention}(Q, K, V) = \text{softmax}\left(\frac{QK^T}{\sqrt{d_k}}\right) V$$

Breaking this down:

1. QK^T is dot product between every query and every key. The shape `[n, n]` and an entry `[i, j]` measures how much token `i` should attend to token `j`.
2. $\sqrt{d_k}$ scales the dot products by the square root of the key dimension. Without this, dot products in high dimensions become very large and pushes the softmax into regions with near-zero gradients and destabilizing training.
3. $softmax()$ converts scores to probabilities. Each row sums to 1. This is the attention weight matrix.
4. $\times V$ is the weighted sum of value vectors. Each token's output is a blend of all value vectors, weighted by how much it attends to each position.

The result is a new representation for each token that has been informed by the entire sequence. The attention chapter REFF goes deeper into the computational mechanics and what attention heads actually compute.

6.5.3 The causal mask

For language model training, the model must not attend to future tokens. When predicting the token at position `i`, only positions `0` through `i-1` should be visible, otherwise the model is simply reading the answer.

This is enforced by a causal mask: before softmax, a large negative value (effectively `-∞`) is added to attention scores where `j > i`. After softmax, these positions have attention weight 0.

```
Tokens:
Position:   0     1     2     3
           the   cat   sat    on

Causal Attention Matrix (upper triangle masked)

                 Key tokens →
               the   cat   sat    on
Query ↓
the            1.0   0.0   0.0   0.0
cat            0.3   0.7   0.0   0.0
sat            0.1   0.5   0.4   0.0
on             0.2   0.1   0.3   0.4
```

Each token attends to itself and all previous tokens and it will never see the future tokens. This masking enables a decoder-only Transformer to function as an autoregressive language model. It allows the model to be trained on the full sequence in a single forward pass, while ensuring that each position can attend only to preceding tokens.

6.5.3.1 Bidirectional attention (encoder models)

Used in encoder-only models such as BERT, RoBERTa, and most embedding models.

Here, **no causal mask is applied**:

- each token can attend to all other tokens
- both left and right context are visible

This enables richer representations because every token is contextualized by the full sequence.

However, it breaks autoregressive generation:

> if a model can see future tokens, it cannot learn to predict them

Instead, encoder models are trained with masking objectives (e.g., masked language modeling), where some tokens are hidden and must be reconstructed.

6.5.3.2 Prefix masking (prefix-LM / partial bidirectionality)

A hybrid scheme used in some long-context and instruction models.

The sequence is split into two parts:

- **prefix (context)**: fully visible to itself and often to the entire sequence
- **generation region (suffix)**: causal masking applies

This allows:

- bidirectional understanding of the prompt/context
- autoregressive generation for outputs

It is particularly useful for: - long document conditioning - retrieval-augmented generation - structured prompt formats

---

6.5.3.3 Encoder–decoder (cross-attention masking)

The encoder–decoder transformer is designed for tasks where an input sequence must be *understood* before a new sequence is generated. Models such as **T5** and **BART** follow this structure.

The architecture separates the model into two cooperating systems:

- The **encoder** reads the entire input at once using bidirectional self-attention. Every token can attend to every other token, allowing the model to construct a contextual representation which is often described as a *memory* of the input.
- The **decoder** then generates the output sequence step by step. Unlike the encoder, its self-attention is **causally masked**, meaning each token can only attend to previously generated tokens. This preserves autoregressive generation.

  A second attention mechanism (**cross-attention**) connects the two halves of the model. Here, the decoder forms queries while the encoder provides keys and values, allowing generation to remain grounded in the encoded input representation.

This separation of *understanding* and *generation* makes the encoder–decoder architecture especially effective for transformation tasks such as translation, summarization, and structured rewriting. This creates a structured information flow:

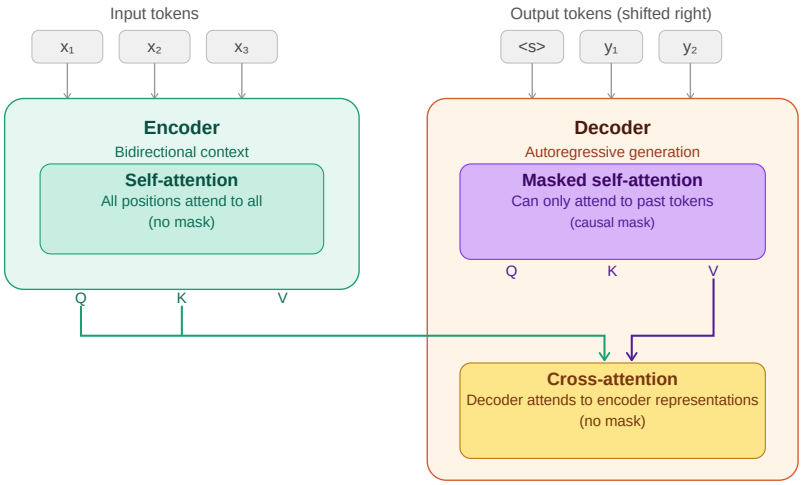

Figure 6.3: encoder-decoder information flow

6.6 Multi-head attention

A single attention operation gives each token one way of relating to every other token nevertheless tokens simultaneously relate to each other in multiple ways.

In `"John gave Mary the book"`, `John` relates to `gave` syntactically (as subject), to `Mary` semantically (as giver to recipient), and to `the book` as the transferred object. A single attention head cannot capture all of these simultaneously and it results in production of a single weighted blend over the sequence.

Multi-head attention runs multiple attention operations in parallel, each with its own learned Q, K, V projections. With this format each head can specialize in a different type of relationship. Finally, the outputs of all heads are concatenated and projected through a learned output matrix W_O back to d_{model} dimensions.

For GPT-3: `d_model = 12,288`, `h = 96` heads, `d_k = 128` per head. The 96 heads run in parallel, each attending to the sequence from a different perspective.

6.7 The feed-forward network

After the attention sublayer, each token passes through a position-wise feed-forward network (FFN) independently:

$$FFN(x) = GeLU(xW_1 + b_1)W_2 + b_2$$

The intermediate dimension is typically 4× the model dimension: for `d_model = 1,024`, the FFN expands to 4,096 dimensions, applies the activation, then projects back to 1,024.

Crucially, the FFN operates on each token independently and identically. The attention layer mixes information across tokens; the FFN processes each token in isolation. Together they form a complementary pair: attention gathers the context and FFN processes it.

6.8 Residual connections and layer normalization

6.8.1 Residual connections

```
x = x + Attention(LayerNorm(x))
x = x + FFN(LayerNorm(x))
```

The output of each sublayer is added back to its input which gives the gradients a direct path backward through the network, enabling training of very deep models. Without residual connections, training a 96-layer network is extremely difficult due to gradients vanishing or exploding before reaching the earlier layers.

Residual connections make the default behavior of each sublayer simply pass its input through unchanged. As a result, sublayers only need to learn small refinements on top of the identity function, which is a much easier optimization problem than learning the full transformation from scratch.

6.8.2 Layer normalization

Layer normalization is used to stabilize the activations of a transformer by normalizing each token's representation across its feature dimensions. Unlike normalization methods that have been used in convolutional networks, it operates independently on each token rather than across the batch or sequence.

Formally, for a hidden state vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^d$:

$$\text{LayerNorm}(x) = \frac{x - \text{mean}(x)}{\sqrt{\text{var}(x) + \varepsilon}} \cdot \gamma + \beta$$

where: - `mean(x)` and `var(x)` are computed over the feature dimension - ε is a small constant for numerical stability - γ and β are learned scale and shift parameters and allow the model to restore or reshape the normalized representation if needed.

This normalization keeps activations in a controlled range, which prevents instability as signals propagate through many stacked layers. Without it, deep transformers become difficult to train due to exploding or vanishing activations in the residual stream.

6.8.2.1 Why not Batch Normalization?

Batch Normalization is rarely used in transformer language models for a fundamental reason: it depends on batch-level statistics.

In BatchNorm, normalization is computed across examples in a minibatch. This creates several problems for language modeling:

- **Inference mismatch**: at inference time, batch sizes are often 1 (especially in autoregressive decoding), making batch statistics unreliable or unavailable
- **Sequence variability**: token sequences have variable lengths, making batch-wise statistics inconsistent across steps
- **Autoregressive constraint**: generation happens one token at a time, so there is no meaningful "batch" context during decoding

Because of these issues, BatchNorm introduces instability and is incompatible with the sequential nature of language model inference. LayerNorm avoids this entirely by normalizing within each token independently.

6.8.2.2 Pre-LN vs Post-LN

The original transformer used **Post-LN**, where normalization is applied after the residual connection:

```
x = x + Sublayer(x)
x = LayerNorm(x)
```

Modern large language models instead use **Pre-LN**, where normalization happens before the sublayer:

```
x = x + Sublayer(LayerNorm(x))
```

Pre-LN is now the standard architecture because it significantly improves optimization stability in deep networks. While it can sometimes slightly reduce raw performance compared to Post-LN in certain setups, it provides much more reliable training at scale. It ensures that each sublayer receives well-conditioned inputs while maintaining a clean gradient flow through the residual stream. This stability benefit becomes increasingly important as models grow to hundreds of layers, where training dynamics would become difficult to control.

6.8.2.3 RMSNorm (modern simplification)

Some recent architectures replace LayerNorm with **RMSNorm (Root Mean Square Normalization)**, used in models such as LLaMA.

RMSNorm simplifies LayerNorm by removing the mean-centering step:

$$\text{RMSNorm}(x) = \frac{x}{\sqrt{\text{mean}(x^2) + \varepsilon}} \times \gamma$$

Key differences: - no subtraction of the mean - normalization is based only on vector magnitude - slightly cheaper computationally - empirically comparable or better performance in large-scale models

Despite its simplicity, RMSNorm preserves the key property needed for deep transformers: controlling the scale of activations in the residual stream.

6.9 Stacking transformer blocks

A single transformer block gives the model one round of attention and one round of FFN computation while modern LLMs stack many of them:

Model	Layers	d_model	Heads	Parameters
GPT-2 Small	12	768	12	117M
GPT-2 XL	48	1,600	25	1.5B
GPT-3	96	12,288	96	175B
LLaMA 2 70B	80	8,192	64	70B
LLaMA 3 405B	126	16,384	128	405B

Each layer refines the representation produced by the previous layer. Early layers tend to encode syntactic features while middle layers encode semantic relationships and final layers encode task-specific features relevant to prediction. This hierarchy

---

6.10 Architecture variants

The standard transformer has been modified in various ways by recent models.

6.10.1 Grouped Query Attention (GQA)

Standard multi-head attention uses separate Q, K, and V projections for each head. In contrast, Multi-Query Attention (MQA) shares a single set of K and V projections across all heads, while keeping separate Q projections per head. Grouped Query Attention (GQA) works in a middle ground: K and V are shared across groups of heads, while each head (or each group of heads) retains its own Q projections.

LLaMA 2 70B, LLaMA 3, and Mistral use GQA. The motivation is inference efficiency: KV cache memory (chapter REFF) scales with the number of K, V heads and fewer KV heads is equal to smaller cache, resulting in longer sequences and larger batches at the same memory budget.

6.10.2 Sliding window attention

Used by Mistral 7B. Instead of attending to all previous tokens, each token attends only to a local window of the most recent `w` tokens. For long sequences this reduces attention complexity from $O(n^2)$ to $O(n \cdot w)$. Information from beyond the window propagates through the layered structure of the network and multiple layers of local attention can capture long-range dependencies indirectly.

6.10.3 Activation functions (ReLU → Tanh → Sigmoid → GELU → Swish → GLU → SwiGLU)

The feed-forward network (FFN) in transformers is where most of the non-linear feature transformation happens and over time, activation functions have evolved from simple thresholding operations to smooth functions and finally to gated multiplicative mechanisms.

6.10.3.1 ReLU (Rectified Linear Unit)

$$\mathrm{ReLU}(x) = \max(0, x)$$

ReLU is the simplest activation function, zeroing out all negative values while leaving positive values unchanged, which makes it computationally efficient and encourages sparse activations. However, this abrupt cutoff at zero can discard useful information, making it a useful starting point but not ideal for training deep transformer models.

6.10.3.2 Sigmoid

$$\sigma(x) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-x}}$$

The sigmoid function was one of the earliest nonlinearities used in neural networks, mapping inputs into the range ((0, 1)) in a smooth and differentiable way that can be interpreted as a probability or gating mechanism; intuitively, it acts like a soft switch that controls how much of a signal passes through, from fully blocked at 0 to fully allowed at 1.

6.10.3.3 Tanh (Hyperbolic Tangent)

$$\tanh(x) = \frac{e^x - e^{-x}}{e^x + e^{-x}}$$

Tanh was widely used in early neural networks and recurrent models before transformers, producing outputs in the range ([-1, 1]) with a smooth, zero-centered, symmetric shape that preserves both positive and negative signals; unlike ReLU, it does not discard negative information but instead compresses inputs into a bounded range, allowing both excitatory and inhibitory effects to be represented.

6.10.3.4 Why sigmoid and tanh are rarely used in transformers

Both sigmoid and tanh share a key limitation in that they saturate for large absolute values of (x), causing gradients to vanish in those regions and making optimization difficult in deep architectures such as transformers. Despite this, sigmoid remains important in practice, especially in gating mechanisms like GLU and LSTM-style components, as well as in attention-related soft selection functions where smooth probabilistic control is useful.

6.10.3.5 GELU (Gaussian Error Linear Unit)

$$\mathrm{GELU}(x) = x \cdot \Phi(x)$$

GELU replaces hard thresholding with a smooth probabilistic gating function.

Intuition: Instead of "drop or keep", it asks: > "how likely is this feature to be useful?"

This smoothness improves optimization stability and is used in BERT and early GPT-style models.

6.10.3.6 Swish

Swish is a simpler, learned-smooth alternative to GELU:

$$\mathrm{Swish}(x) = x \cdot \sigma(x)$$

where ((x)) is the sigmoid function.

Swish is a smooth, fully differentiable activation similar in spirit to GELU, but simpler in form and notable for being non-monotonic, meaning it can both slightly suppress or enhance features depending on the input value. Intuitively,

rather than using hard gating like ReLU or probabilistic gating like GELU, Swish applies a self-gated mechanism where each feature determines how much of itself to pass forward, which is why it often matches or slightly improves GELU's performance while remaining conceptually simpler.

6.10.3.7 GLU (Gated Linear Unit)

instead of simply modifying the activation function, GLU introduces explicit gating between two learned projections, where the input is split into a content stream and a gate stream:

$$\mathrm{GLU}(x) = (xW_a) \odot \sigma(xW_b)$$

This design separates "what to pass" from "how much to pass," enabling multiplicative feature control that is substantially more expressive than standard pointwise activations.

6.10.3.8 SwiGLU (Swish-Gated Linear Unit)

Modern LLMs (LLaMA, PaLM, Mistral) use SwiGLU, which replaces the sigmoid gate with Swish:

$$\mathrm{FFN}(x) = (\mathrm{Swish}(xW_1) \odot (xW_2))W_3$$

SwiGLU combines the smooth, self-gated nonlinearity of Swish with the multiplicative two-stream structure of GLU, so rather than simply applying a nonlinearity to a feature, it learns how two projected feature streams interact through multiplicative gating. This shift from pointwise transformation to learned feature interaction makes it significantly more expressive than standard activation functions.

6.10.3.9 Visual intuition: from tanh to GELU-like behavior

A useful way to build intuition for modern activation functions is to see how they evolve from simple bounded nonlinearities into smooth, ReLU-like gating mechanisms that combine stability with adaptive feature control.

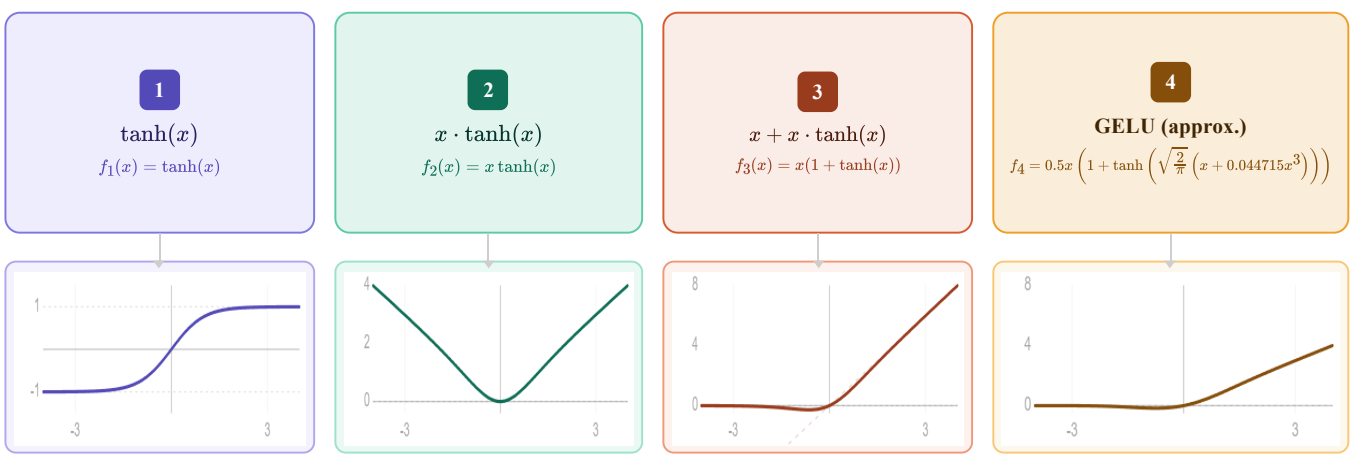

Figure 6.4: Tanh to GELU.

6.10.3.10 Visual intuition: from sigmoid to Swish-like behavior

A useful way to build intuition for modern activation functions is to see how they evolve from simple probabilistic gating functions into smooth, self-modulated nonlinearities. Sigmoid starts as a soft on–off switch, squeezing inputs

into ((0,1)), while Swish generalizes this idea by letting the input itself be modulated by a smooth gate, producing a function that behaves like a continuous, input-dependent scaling mechanism rather than a fixed probabilistic filter.

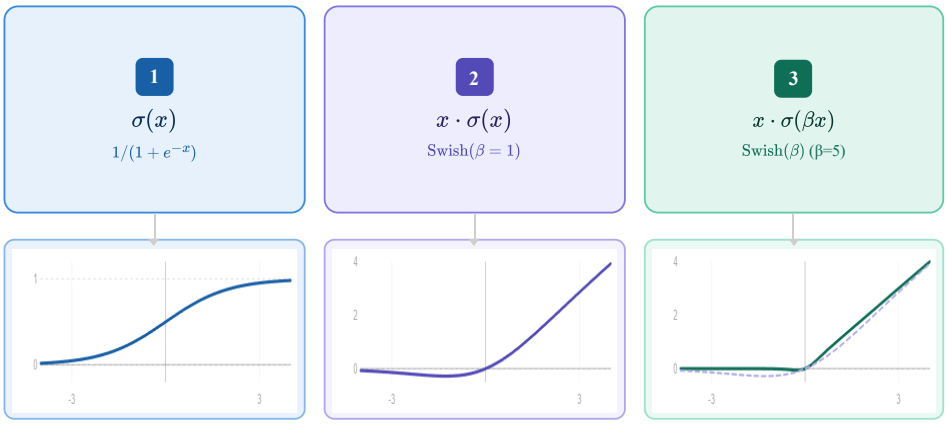

Figure 6.5: Sigmoid to swish.

6.10.4 Mixture of Experts (MoE)

Mixture of Experts (MoE) is used by Mixtral, reportedly GPT-4, it is a sparse Transformer architecture that increases model capacity without proportional increase in computation. It replaces the standard Feed-Forward Network (FFN) with multiple parallel FFNs (experts) and uses a learned routing mechanism to activate only a small subset per token.

Formulation

Given a set of experts $\text{FFN}_1, \ldots, \text{FFN}_N$, a gating function computes routing scores:

$$g(x) = \text{softmax}(W_r x)$$

MoE enables sparse computation, where only a fraction of parameters are active per token. This allows model capacity to scale significantly while keeping per-token compute similar to dense models. For example, a model with 8 experts of 7B parameters (~47B total) may activate only 1–2 experts per token, resulting in compute comparable to a much smaller dense model.

6.11 The output layer

After the final transformer block, the hidden state at the last token position is projected back to vocabulary size:

$$\text{logits} = h_{\text{final}} W_{\text{embed}}^{\top} \quad \text{shape: [vocab_size]}$$

This produces one unnormalized score per vocabulary token. Softmax converts logits to probabilities:

$$P(\text{token}_i) = \frac{\exp(\text{logits}_i)}{\sum_j \exp(\text{logits}_j)}$$

The training objective (cross-entropy loss) maximizes the probability assigned to the actual next tokenand that is the only thing the model is explicitly trained to do. Chapter REFF covers training objectives in detail.

6.12 What the model actually learns

The transformer is trained to predict the next token. That is all. There is no explicit objective to learn grammar, facts, reasoning, or common sense, yet models trained at scale acquire all of these.

Why? Because predicting the next token well requires understanding everything that determines what comes next. Next-token prediction is a seems to be a simple objective that implicitly rewards a comprehensive world model. In order to predict `"Paris"` after `"The capital of France is"`, the model must have encoded the fact that Paris is the capital of France or to predict grammatically correct continuations, it must have internalized syntactic rules.

6.13 Key takeaways

- The transformer replaced recurrence with attention, enabling full parallelism during training and direct token-to-token interaction at any distance
- Token embeddings map integer IDs to continuous vectors; positional encodings inject order information; RoPE encodes relative rather than absolute position
- Self-attention allows every token to gather information from every other token via query-key dot products, scaled and softmaxed into attention weights over value vectors
- The causal mask enforces that tokens cannot attend to future positions, enabling autoregressive training on the full sequence in a single forward pass
- Multi-head attention runs multiple attention operations in parallel, each specializing in a different type of relationship.
- The feed-forward network processes each token independently after attention, acting as associative memory for facts learned during training
- Residual connections and layer normalization stabilize training of very deep networks; Pre-LN and RMSNorm are the current standard
- Modern variants (RoPE, GQA, SwiGLU, MoE) improve efficiency and performance without changing the fundamental architecture
- The next-token prediction objective implicitly rewards a comprehensive world model because everything that makes text predictable (grammar, facts, reasoning) improves prediction quality

---

6.14 Further reading

- Vaswani et al. (2017). *Attention Is All You Need.*: The original transformer paper.
- Alammar, J. (2018). *The Illustrated Transformer.*: The clearest visual explanation of the architecture available. Essential companion to this chapter.

← *Previous: 06 — Embeddings and meaning representation*
Next: 08 — Attention computation →

Transformer Architecture — Cheat Sheet

Why Transformers Won

- RNNs: sequential → no parallelism
- Long-range info bottleneck in hidden state
- Transformers: attention → full parallelism + direct token interaction

High-Level Pipeline

Tokens → Embeddings → Positional Encoding → Transformer Blocks → Logits → Softmax

`P(next token | context)`

Embeddings & Position

Token embedding: lookup table (vocab → vectors)

Weight tying: input embedding = output projection

Positional encodings:

- Sinusoidal (fixed, original transformer)
- Learned embeddings
- RoPE: rotates Q/K → relative position

Self-Attention

$Q = XWq,\ K = XWk,\ V = XWv$

$\text{Attention} = \text{softmax}(QK^T / \sqrt{d})\ V$

Each token attends to all previous tokens

Creates contextualized representation

Attention Masks

- Causal (decoder): only past tokens visible
- Bidirectional (encoder): full sequence visible (BERT)
- Encoder-decoder: cross-attention between memory + generation
- Prefix LM: prefix bidirectional, suffix causal

Multi-Head Attention

Multiple parallel attention heads

Each head learns different relation type

Outputs concatenated + projected

`Specialization emerges from training`

Feed-Forward Network

$FFN(x) = W2 \cdot activation(W1\ x)$

Per-token independent transformation

Modern activations:

- GELU (default GPT/BERT)
- SwiGLU (modern LLaMA, Mistral)

Residual + Normalization

x = x + Sublayer(LayerNorm(x)) (Pre-LN)

Stabilizes deep training

LayerNorm → RMSNorm (modern models)

Pre-LN = stable gradients at scale

Modern Variants

- RoPE: relative position encoding
- GQA: shared K/V across heads
- MoE: sparse expert FFNs
- Sliding window attention (Mistral)

Output Layer

$logits = h\ W^T \rightarrow softmax \rightarrow P(next\ token)$

Training objective: next-token prediction only

Figure 6.6: Cheat sheet.

Part IV

The Forbidden Archive

Part V

The Forging of Intelligence

Part VI

The Trial of the Answer

Part VII

The Keepers of the Waking Engine

[1] G.-I. Yu, J. S. Jeong, G.-W. Kim, S. Kim, and B.-G. Chun, "Orca: A distributed serving system for {transformer-based} generative models," in *16th USENIX symposium on operating systems design and implementation (OSDI 22)*, 2022, pp. 521–538.